

WHAT IS LINEAR REGRESSION?

Definition

Linear regression assumes the output is a linear combination of the input features.

Mathematical Form:

$$y = w_0 + w_1x_1 + w_2x_2 + \dots + w_dx_d \quad (1)$$

where:

- $\mathbf{x} = [x_1, x_2, \dots, x_d]^T$ are the input features
- $\mathbf{w} = [w_1, w_2, \dots, w_d]^T$ are the weights
- w_0 is the bias term

EXAMPLES OF LINEAR REGRESSION

1 Salary Prediction

- ▶ $\text{Salary} = w_0 + w_1 \times \text{Years of Experience}$

2 Crop Yield Prediction

- ▶ $\text{Yield} = w_0 + w_1 \times \text{Rainfall} + w_2 \times \text{Fertilizer}$

3 Energy Consumption

- ▶ $\text{Energy} = w_0 + w_1 \times \text{Temperature} + w_2 \times \text{Hour} + w_3 \times \text{Day}$

The relationship between inputs and output is assumed to be **linear**.

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THE FOUR COMPONENTS

A complete machine learning system consists of:

- 1 Data: d -dimensional input vectors and target outputs
- 2 Model: Single neuron implementing linear function
- 3 Objective Function: Measures prediction error
- 4 Learning Algorithm: Gradient descent to optimize weights

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MATRIX FORM OF DATA

For efficient computation, we organize data into matrices:

Input Data = Augmented Features:

Add bias term: $\tilde{\mathbf{x}}^{(i)} = [1, x_1^{(i)}, \dots, x_d^{(i)}]^T$

Each row = one training example

Design Matrix: $\mathbf{X} \in \mathbb{R}^{N \times (d+1)}$ $\mathbf{X} = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & x_1^{(1)} & \dots & x_d^{(1)} \\ 1 & x_1^{(2)} & \dots & x_d^{(2)} \\ \vdots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots \\ 1 & x_1^{(N)} & \dots & x_d^{(N)} \end{bmatrix}$

Target Vector: $\mathbf{y} \in \mathbb{R}^N$ $\mathbf{y} = [y^{(1)} \ y^{(2)} \ \dots \ y^{(N)}]^T$

Weight Vector: $\mathbf{w} \in \mathbb{R}^{d+1}$ $\mathbf{w} = [w_0 \ w_1 \ w_2 \ \dots \ w_d]^T$

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LINEAR MODEL PREDICTION

Model: A single neuron computes a weighted sum and applied identity activation function.

Prediction for input $\mathbf{x}$:

$$\hat{y} = f(\mathbf{w}^T \mathbf{x}) = f(w_0 + w_1 x_1 + w_2 x_2 + \dots + w_d x_d) \quad (2)$$

where:

- $\mathbf{w} = [w_0, w_1, \dots, w_d]^T \in \mathbb{R}^{d+1}$ are the model parameters
- $\mathbf{x} = [1, x_1, \dots, x_d]^T \in \mathbb{R}^{d+1}$ is the input
- $f(\cdot)$ is the identity activation $f(z) = z$

Vectorized form: for all predictions

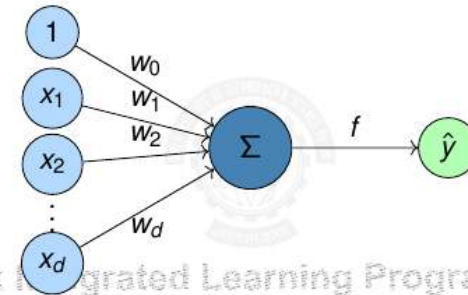
$$\hat{\mathbf{y}} = \mathbf{X} \mathbf{w} \quad (3)$$

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LINEAR MODEL AS A SINGLE NEURON

Model linear regression as a single artificial neuron:



- Input: d -dimensional feature vector $\mathbf{x} \in \mathbb{R}^d$
- Output: Single predicted value $\hat{y} \in \mathbb{R}$

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IDENTITY ACTIVATION FUNCTION

Identity Activation Function

$$f(z) = z \quad (4)$$

Properties of Identity Function

- Output: Continuous, $(-\infty, \infty)$
- Differentiable everywhere: $f'(z) = 1$
- Allows output to take any real value
- Gradient flows unchanged through the neuron
- Perfect for predicting continuous targets

Why identity for regression?

- Target values are continuous (prices, temperatures, etc.)
- Need to predict any real number, not just binary $\{0, 1\}$
- Differentiability enables gradient-based optimization
- No information loss from input to output

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OBJECTIVE FUNCTION: SQUARED ERROR LOSS

We need to measure how well our model fits the data.

Loss for single example:

$$\ell(\mathbf{w}; \mathbf{x}^{(i)}, y^{(i)}) = \frac{1}{2} (\hat{y}^{(i)} - y^{(i)})^2 = \frac{1}{2} (\mathbf{w}^T \mathbf{x}^{(i)} - y^{(i)})^2 \quad (5)$$

Total Loss (Mean Squared Error):

$$J(\mathbf{w}) = \frac{1}{N} \sum_{i=1}^N \frac{1}{2} (\mathbf{w}^T \mathbf{x}^{(i)} - y^{(i)})^2 \quad (6)$$

Goal: Find $\mathbf{w}^*$ that minimizes $J(\mathbf{w})$

$$\mathbf{w}^* = \arg \min_{\mathbf{w}} J(\mathbf{w}) \quad (7)$$

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WHY SQUARED ERROR?

Advantages of squared error loss:

- Differentiable: Smooth everywhere, easy to optimize
- Convex: Single global minimum (for linear models)
- Penalizes large errors: Quadratic growth
- Statistical interpretation: Maximum likelihood under Gaussian noise

Vector Form:

$$J(\mathbf{w}) = \frac{1}{2N} \|\mathbf{X}\mathbf{w} - \mathbf{y}\|^2 = \frac{1}{2N} (\mathbf{X}\mathbf{w} - \mathbf{y})^T (\mathbf{X}\mathbf{w} - \mathbf{y}) \quad (8)$$

where $\mathbf{X} \in \mathbb{R}^{N \times (d+1)}$ is the design matrix and $\mathbf{y} \in \mathbb{R}^N$ is the target vector.

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BATCH GRADIENT DESCENT ALGORITHM

Algorithm 1: Gradient Descent for Linear Regression

Input: Dataset $\mathcal{D} = \{(\mathbf{x}^{(i)}, y^{(i)})\}_{i=1}^N$, learning rate η , tolerance ϵ

Output: Learned weights $\mathbf{w}$

```
1 Initialize  $\mathbf{w}^{(0)} = \mathbf{0}$  (or random);
2  $t \leftarrow 0$ ;
3 while not converged do
4   Compute gradient:  $\nabla J(\mathbf{w}^{(t)}) = \frac{1}{N} \mathbf{X}^T (\mathbf{X}\mathbf{w}^{(t)} - \mathbf{y})$ ;
5   Update weights:  $\mathbf{w}^{(t+1)} = \mathbf{w}^{(t)} - \eta \nabla J(\mathbf{w}^{(t)})$ ;
6   if  $\|\nabla J(\mathbf{w}^{(t+1)})\| < \epsilon$  then
7     break // Converged
8    $t \leftarrow t + 1$ ;
9 return  $\mathbf{w}^{(t+1)}$ ;
```

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COMPUTING THE GRADIENT

Gradient of squared error loss:

$$\nabla J(\mathbf{w}) = \frac{\partial J}{\partial \mathbf{w}} = \frac{1}{N} \sum_{i=1}^N (\mathbf{w}^T \mathbf{x}^{(i)} - y^{(i)}) \mathbf{x}^{(i)} \quad (9)$$

Matrix Form:

$$\nabla J(\mathbf{w}) = \frac{1}{N} \mathbf{X}^T (\mathbf{X}\mathbf{w} - \mathbf{y}) \quad (10)$$

where $\mathbf{X}^T \in \mathbb{R}^{(d+1) \times N}$, $\mathbf{X}\mathbf{w} - \mathbf{y} \in \mathbb{R}^N$, so $\nabla J \in \mathbb{R}^{d+1}$

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GRADIENT DESCENT UPDATE RULE

Update equation:

$$\mathbf{w}^{(t+1)} = \mathbf{w}^{(t)} - \frac{\eta}{N} \mathbf{X}^T (\mathbf{X} \mathbf{w}^{(t)} - \mathbf{y}) \quad (11)$$

Key Parameters:

- Learning rate η : Controls step size
 - ▶ Too large: May overshoot minimum
 - ▶ Too small: Slow convergence
- Stopping criterion: $\|\nabla J(\mathbf{w})\| < \epsilon$ or max iterations

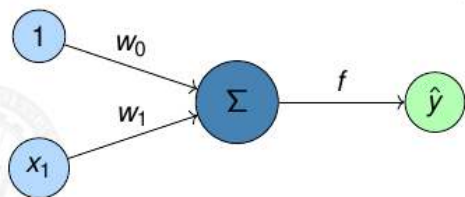
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NUMERICAL EXAMPLE: SETUP

Tiny Dataset: Predict house price from size

Size (x_1)	Price (y)
1	2
2	4
3	5



Matrix Formulation:

$$\mathbf{X} = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 1 \\ 1 & 2 \\ 1 & 3 \end{bmatrix} \in \mathbb{R}^{3 \times 2}, \quad \mathbf{y} = \begin{bmatrix} 2 \\ 4 \\ 5 \end{bmatrix} \in \mathbb{R}^3, \quad \mathbf{w} = \begin{bmatrix} w_0 \\ w_1 \end{bmatrix} \in \mathbb{R}^2$$

NUMERICAL EXAMPLE: INITIALIZATION

Hyperparameters: $\eta = 0.1 \quad N = 3$

Initialize weights: $\mathbf{w}^{(0)} = \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix}$

Vectorized Prediction: $\hat{\mathbf{y}} = \mathbf{X} \mathbf{w}$

$$\text{Initial predictions: } \hat{\mathbf{y}}^{(0)} = \mathbf{X} \mathbf{w}^{(0)} = \begin{bmatrix} 0 & 0 \end{bmatrix} \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 1 & 2 & 3 \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 0 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix}$$

$$\text{Loss Function: } J(\mathbf{w}) = \frac{1}{2N} \|\mathbf{X} \mathbf{w} - \mathbf{y}\|^2$$

$$\text{Initial loss: } J(\mathbf{w}^{(0)}) = \frac{1}{6} \left\| \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 0 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix} - \begin{bmatrix} 2 \\ 4 \\ 5 \end{bmatrix} \right\|^2 = \frac{1}{6} (4 + 16 + 25) = 7.5$$

NUMERICAL EXAMPLE: COMPUTING GRADIENT

$$\text{Error vector: } \mathbf{e}^{(0)} = \hat{\mathbf{y}}^{(0)} - \mathbf{y} = \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 0 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix} - \begin{bmatrix} 2 \\ 4 \\ 5 \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} -2 \\ -4 \\ -5 \end{bmatrix}$$

$$\text{Gradient computation: } \nabla J(\mathbf{w}^{(0)}) = \frac{1}{N} \mathbf{X}^T \mathbf{e}^{(0)}$$

$$\begin{aligned} \nabla J(\mathbf{w}^{(0)}) &= \frac{1}{3} \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 1 & 2 & 3 \end{bmatrix} \begin{bmatrix} -2 \\ -4 \\ -5 \end{bmatrix} \\ &= \frac{1}{3} \begin{bmatrix} -2 - 4 - 5 \\ -2 - 8 - 15 \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} -3.67 \\ -8.33 \end{bmatrix} \end{aligned}$$

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NUMERICAL EXAMPLE: WEIGHT UPDATE

$$\text{Gradient descent update: } \mathbf{w}^{(1)} = \mathbf{w}^{(0)} - \eta \nabla J(\mathbf{w}^{(0)})$$

$$\text{Computing new weights: } \mathbf{w}^{(1)} = \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix} - 0.1 \begin{bmatrix} -3.67 \\ -8.33 \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} 0.367 \\ 0.833 \end{bmatrix}$$

$$\text{New predictions: } \hat{\mathbf{y}}^{(1)} = \mathbf{X} \mathbf{w}^{(1)}$$

$$\hat{\mathbf{y}}^{(1)} = \begin{bmatrix} 0.367 & 0.833 \end{bmatrix} \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 1 & 2 & 3 \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} 1.20 \\ 2.03 \\ 2.87 \end{bmatrix}$$

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NUMERICAL EXAMPLE: NEW LOSS

$$\text{New error vector: } \mathbf{e}^{(1)} = \hat{\mathbf{y}}^{(1)} - \mathbf{y} = \begin{bmatrix} 1.20 \\ 2.03 \\ 2.87 \end{bmatrix} - \begin{bmatrix} 2 \\ 4 \\ 5 \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} -0.80 \\ -1.97 \\ -2.13 \end{bmatrix}$$

$$\text{Loss after one iteration: } J(\mathbf{w}^{(1)}) = \frac{1}{6} \|\mathbf{e}^{(1)}\|^2 = \frac{1}{6} (0.64 + 3.88 + 4.54) \approx 1.51$$

Progress:

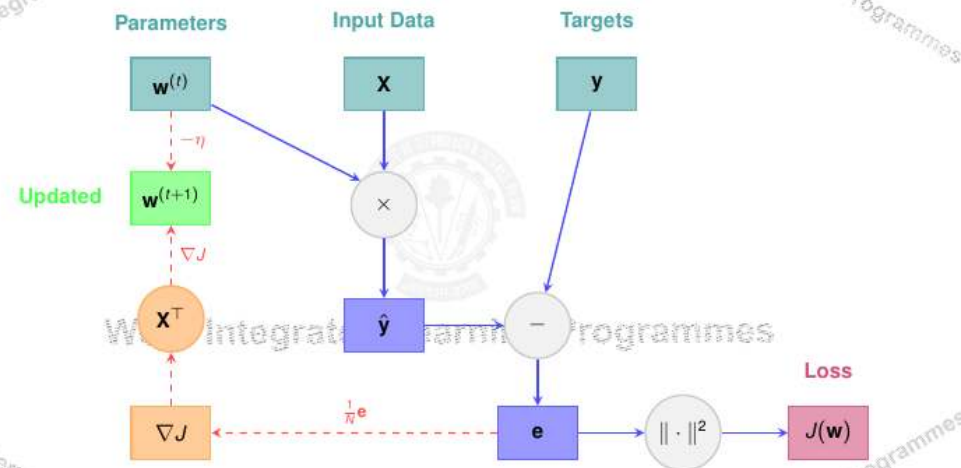
- Initial loss: $J(\mathbf{w}^{(0)}) = 7.5$
- After 1 iteration: $J(\mathbf{w}^{(1)}) = 1.51$
- 80% reduction! ✓**

Continue until $\|\nabla J(\mathbf{w})\| < \epsilon$ or max iterations reached

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COMPUTATIONAL GRAPH FOR ONE GRADIENT DESCENT STEP



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MODEL EVALUATION: TRAINING VS TEST ERROR

Key Principle: Evaluate on unseen data

Data Split:

- Training set: Used to learn weights $\mathbf{w}$ (typically 90-99%)
- Test set: Used to evaluate generalization (typically 1-10%)

$$\text{Training Error: } J_{\text{train}} = \frac{1}{N_{\text{train}}} \sum_{i \in \text{train}} (\hat{y}^{(i)} - y^{(i)})^2$$

$$\text{Test Error: } J_{\text{test}} = \frac{1}{N_{\text{test}}} \sum_{i \in \text{test}} (\hat{y}^{(i)} - y^{(i)})^2$$

Goal: Minimize test error (generalization performance)

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EVALUATION METRICS

1. Mean Squared Error (MSE):

$$\text{MSE} = \frac{1}{N} \sum_{i=1}^N (\hat{y}^{(i)} - y^{(i)})^2 \quad (12)$$

2. Root Mean Squared Error (RMSE):

$$\text{RMSE} = \sqrt{\text{MSE}} = \sqrt{\frac{1}{N} \sum_{i=1}^N (\hat{y}^{(i)} - y^{(i)})^2} \quad (13)$$

3. Mean Absolute Error (MAE): (Less sensitive to outliers than MSE)

$$\text{MAE} = \frac{1}{N} \sum_{i=1}^N |y^{(i)} - \hat{y}^{(i)}| \quad (14)$$

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R^2 SCORE (COEFFICIENT OF DETERMINATION)

Definition: Proportion of variance explained by the model

$$R^2 = 1 - \frac{\sum_{i=1}^N (y^{(i)} - \hat{y}^{(i)})^2}{\sum_{i=1}^N (y^{(i)} - \bar{y})^2} = 1 - \frac{\text{SS}_{\text{residual}}}{\text{SS}_{\text{total}}} \quad (15)$$

where $\bar{y} = \frac{1}{N} \sum_{i=1}^N y^{(i)}$ is the mean.

Interpretation:

- $R^2 = 1$: Perfect fit (all variance explained)
- $R^2 = 0$: Model no better than predicting mean
- $R^2 < 0$: Model worse than baseline (possible on test set)
- Typical: $0.7 < R^2 < 0.9$ indicates good fit

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